6
Alternatives to Nationalism in French Africa, 1945–60

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At first glance, the decades after World War II constituted the great period of nationalism in the Third World. Yet ideas of political emancipation were more diverse than the claim to a singular state for each nation or people: political leaders were trying to imagine for themselves different political forms that would turn the inequalities of colonial empire into something else. Some doubted whether the territorial state, in the context of extreme poverty, offered much of a solution to colonized people. They recognized the colonial empires were vulnerable and that they had a chance to make good their claims both to political voice and to entitlement to the resources of empire, not as supplicants but as citizens.

Among political leaders in French-speaking West Africa, such a political vision was a frank recognition of hierarchy in the global order and an attempt to turn the very connections that led to exploitation and disempowerment into the means to overcome poverty and inequality. For many Africans, such claims were not incompatible with a sense of cultural distinction and cultural assertiveness. But when it came to defining what the unit of affinity should be, there was considerable uncertainty until the very moment of "les indépendances." Did the "nation" lie in the numerous and diverse units of African society, in the territorial boundaries imposed by colonization less than a century previously, in larger units of cooperation and potential solidarity, such as French West Africa, in a pan-African vision of solidarity, or in a French nationality and citizenship, purged of invidious inequality?

Take the 1953 statement of the Mouvement des Indépendants de l'Outre-Mer, a major grouping of African politicians. The group called for political emancipation and "economic and social democracy." Their declaration added a warning that the "temptation of narrow nationalisms

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represent a grave danger in a world in which independence risks being only an illusion." The leaders sought at the same time unity among Africans and "vertical solidarity" with France – recognition that inequality could be overcome only by a continued but altered relationship with the once-domineering partner.[1]

Or take the statement of a leading Senegalese political activist, Mamadou Dia, two years later: "It is necessary that in the final analysis the imperialist conception of the nation-state give way to the modern conception of the multinational state."[2] The nation-state, which today appears as both inevitable and modern, appeared to Dia as neither, while the multinational state, which now evokes memories of seemingly antiquated polities like the Austro-Hungarian empire, appears to be both modern and desirable. Dia also used the metaphor of vertical and horizontal connections to advocate the simultaneous expression of an African personality and African solidarity, and a connection with France that was both historical and pragmatic.[3]

The conventional narrative of growing African nationalism triumphing over stolid colonialism can be saved from the evidence of such political formulations by positing that some French Africans were so bamboozled by the pretensions of French culture and the seductions of limited participation in French institutions that they can be written off as reactionaries. But that is to presume the very narrative one should be examining. Perhaps the IOM and Dia represent a point of view that was not only coherent, but an effective challenge to older patterns of French rule. It is only hindsight that makes the territorial state seem like the wave of the future, and even greater hindsight has led some observers to question whether the nation-state was such a positive objective after all.[4]

African political actors were organizing themselves in a world that had just witnessed a titanic clash of empires: the colonial empires of Britain, France, and the Netherlands had been shaken by the takeover by the Japanese Empire of Southeast Asian colonies as well as by the ravages of the Nazi Empire in Europe. The Soviet Union and the US seemed to be extending their imperial reach at the expense of Western European empires. No one could be sure at war's end whether inter-empire conflict would give rise to a different sort of global order. But wherever politics might be headed in 1945, it was coming out of a system of conflicting empires, of complex polities that were highly differentiated and unequal internally and part of a system containing non-equivalent parts – colonies, protectorates, national republics, and dominions, related by various ties of affiliation and subordination.[5]

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My goal in this chapter is not to defend any one position in regard to the desirability of the nation-state as a political form or whether colonialism was a reformable object after all. Rather, I wish to argue that the position articulated by the IOM and Dia was critical to framing debates about politics in the period 1945–60. Most significant political figures in French West Africa were trying to navigate the uncertain waters between colonial rule and territorial independence, searching for ways by which French-speaking Africans could govern themselves together and in relation to France, avoiding both domination by Paris and what they described as "balkanization" or "emiettement" (making into crumbs). Only after the fact was the story of such attempts reconstructed as the triumph of nation over empire.

A new framework for empire: A constitution for the French Union

In the moment of uncertainty after World War II, what was France? In law and state practice, it was not a binary structure of metropole and colony, but something more complex: The French Union, as the Empire was renamed, had six components:[6]

1. European France, divided into departments;
2. "Old" colonies, notably those of the Caribbean that became departments in 1946, plus the enclaves of Senegal (the Quatres Communes), whose inhabitants were citizens;
3. "New" colonies, including most of French Africa, renamed overseas territories, whose inhabitants were mostly subjects;
4. Algeria, whose territory was integral to the French Republic but whose people were divided into citizens, mostly of European origin, and subjects with diminished civil and political rights, the category into which most Muslim Algerians fell.
5. Protectorates, which had come under French rule by treaty, which had their own nationalities, and whose rulers were considered sovereign, including Morocco, Tunisia, and most of Indochina;
6. Mandates, such as Cameroon and Togo, which were inherited by the UN from the League of Nations, and which France ruled as a trustee, not a sovereign, and which could potentially acquire their own nationalities.

As French leaders realized the extent to which French power and authority had been damaged by the war – especially as France proved unable to

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regain full control over Indochina – they accepted that something had to be done to include elites from the colonies in the process of reconstituting the French republic. Their unquestioned assumption – reinforced by vivid experience of the fascist alternative – was that the new French order would be democratic. The question was how to define the people who would be sovereign. The uncertainty of the times provided an opening for African political leaders to turn a small opening into a larger one. Once deputies from the colonies took their seats in the Assemblée Nationale Constituante late in 1945, their acquiescence – at least – to constitutional provisions of most concern to them was so vital that they had room to assert themselves. At the same time, these deputies put long-maintained colonial practices such as *travail forcé* and the *indigénat* under the kind of public scrutiny that they could not sustain; within months of the new legislature these exploitative and humiliating regimes were voted out of existence.

The earliest draft of the new French constitution debated in 1946 had the provision that "All members of the Union have the quality of citizen and enjoy all rights attached to that quality."[7] For the first time, the exercise of citizenship rights throughout overseas France would be independent of civil status, that is a Muslim could marry or inherit property under the Sharia, vote in elections, and claim the same right to live in and work in European France as anyone else.

As a deputy to the constitutional assembly writing a report for the Commission de la Constitution of which he was a member, Léopold Senghor of Senegal put the citizenship provisions in historical context. He had the year before published a chapter in a book entitled *The French Imperial Community*, and he saw Africans as part of a community constructed out of coercion and inequality, but which he sought to transform. In what became a famous formulation, he called on Africans to "assimilate, don't be assimilated," insisting that they could take what French civilization had to offer while still being true to themselves, and he told his French audience that they had much to learn from the African members of their imperial community.[8] Bringing these ideas to the constitutional commission, Senghor invoked the precedent of the moment in the French revolution when all people in the colonies, including enslaved Africans, were freed and made citizens "enjoying all the rights assured by the Constitution." Lamenting Napoleon's re-enslavement of these citizens (which had led the Saint Domingue revolution to turn from reforming empire to exiting from it), he now saw the task as freeing "l'homme d'outre-mer" from the new forms of slavery erected under colonialism. But now, he went on, the "Jacobin tradition"

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of a unitary republic – assuming that its citizens were assimilated to French civilization – had been made obsolete by greater understanding of the civilizations of the Arab world, China, Indochina, India, and Africa. From here he argued for the proposal declaring all inhabitants of the overseas territories to be citizens while recognizing their social and cultural diversity in the form of multiple civil status regimes.[9]

There seemed for a time to be a consensus on such a principle. The center-right deputy Paul Coste-Floret, claiming to speak of French opinion generally, asserted, "We are partisans today of a pluralist democracy, that is a democracy of groups." Senghor, speaking of the Senegalese who had elected him, stated, "If they are politically French, they are not culturally French."[10] Institutionalizing such principles brought out uncertainty and anxiety about how far an empire could redefine itself in an egalitarian direction. Some feared that the overseas French – more numerous than those of Europe – would have too much power at the center, making France the "colony of its former colonies," in the notorious words of deputy Edouard Herriot.[11] Other French deputies feared that too loose a federal structure would encourage secession. Deputies questioned the state of "evolution" of colonial peoples, particularly Africans. In the end, the deputies compromised on a proposed constitution that promised citizenship to all but was vague about exactly what people were citizens of – the French Republic or the French Union – and vague on the details of the conditions under which overseas citizens could vote.

The draft constitution was opposed by much of the French right. Fearing that the draft constitution might be defeated in the referendum scheduled for 5 May 1946, the Senegalese deputy Lamine Guèye asked the assembly to put into an ordinary law the draft constitution's provisions in citizenship. The bill passed unanimously.

When the referendum on the constitution was defeated, a second constituent assembly was elected, and this one was more conservative. Defenders of old-style colonialism mobilized, attacking the extension of citizenship except individual by individual. A strong center with a small minority of overseas deputies and weak institutions at the territorial level emerged as an alternative to the more federalist early proposition. Worst of all for the African deputies, the majority was on the verge of entrenching in the constitution the temporary division of the electorate into citizens and subjects (two electoral colleges), giving whites in the overseas territories disproportionate power. The government party insisted that it still supported a federal France formed of "nations et peoples," and "equality of rights without distinction of race

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or religion," but it now proposed a dual form of citizenship, one of the "French Union," the other of "France." African deputies feared that despite government denials the new version of the constitution would lack the clarity necessary to define citizenship and protect rights.[12]

Overseas deputies had to work together and fight hard to maintain a minimum of protections and rights of the early draft. The government's insistence on second-class Union citizenship and unequal representation led them to walk out of the meetings and refuse to lend their names to the constitution. Their decisive action worked.[13] The government had to back down. European French people overseas would continue for a time to elect their own representatives – the dual college – and the representation of overseas territories would not be proportional to population, but such provisions were not written into the constitution. On the question of citizenship, the ultimate demands of African and other overseas deputies were met, with studiously ambiguous language close to what Senghor originally suggested – inhabitants of the overseas territory would get the "qualities du citoyen," but it was left open exactly what they were citizens of. They could exercise these rights while keeping their own civil status, unless they chose to renounce it. Together, these clauses allowed the French Overseas Ministry to claim, "the legislator wanted to mark the perfect equality of all in public like, but not the perfect identity of the French of the metropole and the overseas French."[14]

Using citizenship, reforming institutions

I am not arguing that France in 1946 became a paradise of multiculturalism and equality. The government could be ruthless in the suppression of political movements that strayed beyond unclearly specified limits. The component parts of the French Union never got the administrative or political autonomy they were promised. The franchise was only gradually extended, reaching universal suffrage in 1956. The National Assembly included delegates from the overseas territories and Algeria, but not in proportion to population and elected in separate colleges for citizens of French civil status and citizens of particular civil status (including Islamic). The assembly of the Union, with both metropolitan and overseas delegates, was consultative only. The President of the Republic was also President of the French Union, but in the latter capacity he had no cabinet – ministers were responsible only to the Assemblée Nationale. It was an inconsistent institutional structure for a state that was neither federal nor unitary.[15]

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In Vietnam and Algeria, imperial citizenship came too late and was an inadequate alternative to both sides in increasingly polarized conflicts. But in West Africa, citizenship became a claim-making construct, and African legislators, trade unions, veterans groups, and political movements made it hard to resist pressure for equality in labor legislation or access to education, which became increasingly expensive for European France. The volatility of the politics of citizenship stemmed from its linkage of rights with obligations; the state that wanted to enforce citizens' obligations could not easily dismiss claims to rights without undermining the terms in which it articulated its own legitimacy.

Social citizenship meant a great deal more in European France after the war than it had before, as social entitlements were expanded and consolidated into a welfare state. I have argued elsewhere that the escalation of claims for social and economic equality among French citizens overseas and in the metropole put the French government in a bind: not only had it made "development" the cornerstone of its political ideology, but its own aspirations for economic growth drew on the notion that Africans could become productive and orderly participants in a "modern" economy.[16] By the mid-1950s, the claims kept coming in, but the evidence for a breakthrough in Africa's contribution to the French economy was much less clear. The "progressive" colonialism of the post-war era began to look increasingly costly.

Meanwhile, African political activists were working within the framework that emerged from the constitutional debates, trying to remedy the manifest flaws of the institutions of the French Union – the double college, lack of universal suffrage, weak Union assembly and territorial legislatures – and to turn its incoherent structures into a federal or confederal system that allowed for both the expression of an African political personality and a claim on resources of the imperial system as a whole. Senghor's political movement founded a new journal, *La Condition Humaine*, in 1948, and proclaimed in its first issue, "We say revolution, but not revolt," and "We say autonomy, not independence." The inaugural statement declared assimilation to be "an illusion in a world where people have become conscious of their personality," while "independence is a dream in a world where the interdependence of peoples manifestly affirms itself." In using the word "revolution" the editors made clear "we have in mind a new economic and social order desired by the people."[17]

For Senghor, ending the "pacte coloniale" – the economic dominance of Europe and the poverty of Africa – implied the kind of "social conquest grabbed in the metropole from the French bourgeoisie," a struggle

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against "indigenous feudalities" as well as colonial exploitation. He saw social rights – not just political ones – as flowing from the French constitution, and he specified what this meant: full access for overseas citizens to civil service jobs, equal wages, equal pensions, and other benefits, and administration of enterprises by both metropolitan and indigenous people. None of this, he argued, had been realized, and funding for French development programs, while a good idea, was "ridiculously low."[18]

In the light of such aspirations for social and economic equality, Senghor wrote on behalf of his political party, the Bloc Démocratique Sénégalais (BDS), "indigenous nationalism" was "like an old hunting rifle." The materiel available in the colonies was "inadequate," while technology in the metropole was "more and more advanced." This led him to his central theme: "Yes, it is good that the Constitution of the French Union allows us to help ourselves with the experience and resources of France, to develop at the same time, with our economic potential, our own Negro-African personality." Such a vision, he insisted, was consistent with the constitution's insistence on equality of race and religion: "We are no more racist than regionalist or nationalist. The BDS in defending the Senegalese and African man defends the man of the French Union and the universal man. The 'Human Condition' remains our definitive objective."[19]

He was equally emphatic about what the movement was not about: "Le Bloc Démocratique Sénégalais, I affirm once again, is not affected by Senegality." He reminded his readers that he had "many times publicly condemned nationalism as an infantile illness which we have to cure."[20]

Turning his agenda into practice required action on different fronts. Although he did not have a specifically working class base in Senegal, Senghor joined other African politicians in pushing for a color-blind labor code for the overseas territories. In the end, and after a general strike across all of French West Africa in 1952, the French legislature passed a code that required equal wages for equal work, the 40-hour week, paid vacations, the right to organize and strike, and other newly standard provisions of labor legislation to wage workers – but only wage workers – in the overseas territories. Even more focused on this campaign was Sékou Touré of Guinée, who came into politics by way of the labor movement. He led a successful strike for the faithful implementation of the labor code in 1953. The labor movement's principal slogan – "Equal pay and equal benefits for equal work" – drew on both the rhetoric of citizenship and solidarity among workers.[21] One can

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follow analogous claim-making processes, although not all with the same success, in other social domains – for equal benefits to veterans, for easier access to high level civil positions, for agricultural development, and for improved health and educational facilities.[22] These escalating demands for the social and economic equality of all citizens were both unanticipated by French leaders and a costly proposition.

At the same time, African political movements were focused on the flaws of Title VIII of the Constitution, which concerned the institutions of the French Union. In the early 1950s, African deputies submitted bills and resolutions amending Title VIII "in a federative sense." Crucial to this goal was the devolution of more power to territorial assemblies, so that each territory could run its own affairs. The deputies sought to hasten the steady but gradual increase in African voter rolls by taking the final steps to universal suffrage. And they wanted the federal domain not only to be limited – to issues such as defense, foreign affairs, communications, and monetary policy – but to be governed in a much more democratic way than was then the case.

The argument for federation was running into the basic problem of how far an empire of citizens could evolve in the direction not just of universal rights, but of universal political participation. The federal institutions of the Fourth Republic, almost everyone admitted, were working badly. The old colonies – mainly in the Caribbean – were now French départments, theoretically equivalent to any other, but diluted politically in the very structures into which they had been assimilated. Algerian Muslims, who now had the rights of citizens and could come and go freely in metropolitan France, were still marginalized in their own territory, as French settlers manipulated political institutions, notably the separate voter rolls for citizens of "French" civil status and of "Muslim" civil status, to keep their hands on power.[23] The former protectorates, now called Associated States, were able to make more of the sovereignty which they had always theoretically retained. Morocco and Tunisia refused to participate in the institutions designed for Associated States, but their status – "protected" by but outside the French Republic – made it easier for French officials to accept their drift toward full independence. Laos and Cambodia were more cooperative, but the war in Vietnam made the Indochinese Federation unworkable.[24] West Africans, as citizens living in overseas territories, retaining *both* a sense of territorial distinctiveness and citizenship status within the French Republic, were getting their voices heard in the National Assembly and Assembly of the French Union, but they were a minority there and did not have the final say over policies in their own territories. Any plan

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for changing the federal (central) components of such a structure had to tack between becoming too unitary or too decentralized.

Senghor and his colleagues understood the dilemmas quite well. A commission headed by Senghor pointed out the consequence of a unitary state in which overseas and metropolitan voters participated on the same basis: "The metropole would without doubt have the impression of losing its sovereignty, submerging by the political rights of the overseas territories, and becoming, in the words of President Herriot, 'the colony of its colonies.'"[25] The solution, for Senghor, was to stress that the French Republic, like any of the overseas components of France, would be self-governing. He saw the end point less as a federal structure than a confederal one: an assemblage of nations, each autonomous in most of its political actions, each with its sense of personality, but acting together for the common good. He and his colleagues kept returning to the metaphor of horizontal and vertical integration, horizontal to emphasize African commonality, vertical to emphasize the historical basis of one relationship – conquest and colonization – giving way to a developmentally oriented relationship, based on the use of French resources and expertise for the benefit of African territories. Africans would remain rights-bearing citizens of the confederal France. They would not be supplicants for aid, but people with a claim on the confederation's resources.[26]

The possibilities and dangers of federation and territorial autonomy

Here we come to the way in which two sets of agendas, of African and French political leaders, overlapped in a way which produced a political dynamic, but not exactly what either party wanted. The French government wanted to maintain sovereignty while shedding some of the financial burdens of development-oriented empire. African politicians were being increasingly absorbed in the territorial base of electoral constituencies, but some of them – Senghor most prominently – kept the federal and confederal options in relief. All African parties favored immediate moves to universal suffrage, the end of the double college, and genuine legislative and executive autonomy for territorial governments, including cabinet posts. French officials were especially leery of the latter claim, fearing loss of clarity in administration, but by 1954 and 1955 they were well aware that they had to do *something* to make good on the implicit bargain of 1946 that Africans would have a real voice in governing themselves within their territories.[27] To this was

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added the government's worries about escalating demands on French resources from African political and social movements, especially civil service unions. They were all too aware that their own insistence on France as an indivisible state and as social model for the French Union was translating into demands for social and economic equality among all citizens.

Seeking to deflect the French reference point towards territories, government officials turned towards two concepts that went against the past direction of French ideology and policy: territorialization and delinkage (*décrochage*). The first meant acceptance of Africans' demands for greater autonomy, while the second implied that the terms of service of civil servants in overseas territories should be separated from those in France. The administration began to look towards the devolution of budgetary authority over internal affairs within each territory to governments (*conseils de gouvernement*) elected under universal suffrage, then made sure that the costs of social services and civil service salaries would be the responsibility of each government, and of the taxpayers of each territory.[28]

There were considerable misgivings within the administration about territorialization and delinkage, for many advisors to the French government did not think that the territories had the resources to function on their own this way – even if the center would (on its own terms) help them out. In particular, the poorer territories of Afrique occidentale française (AOF), such as Upper Volta and Niger, would be hurt by the decentralization of economic planning and resources.[29] Despite officials' reluctance to permit Conseils de gouvernement in the territories, in the end that is what they did, and they did so largely because the only way they could divest themselves of the burdens of centralized social and economic policy was by giving Africans a real stake in administration at the territorial level.

Africans had reason to fear that territorial autonomy would contain a poison pill – what Senghor referred to as Balkanization, the devolution of power to units too small and too poor to function effectively. But African politicians saw in the proposals that some of their most central demands were being met: universal suffrage, the end of the double college, and Conseils de gouvernement at the territorial level. The danger was that the loi cadre would end the federalism debate before it had truly taken place. In the end, Senghor and his colleagues tried to work with and against the loi cadre, striving to keep federalism alive. But they now faced the fact that the loi cadre had made power at the territorial level a reality, and it was a reality that African politicians did not want

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to give up. Mamadou Dia later recognized the extent of the defeat, expressing his "profound and sad conviction of committing one of those major historical errors that can inflect the destiny of a people .... In spite of us, West Africa was balkanized, cut into fragments."[30]

French officials' political calculations were, for once, correct. After the first elections, in 1957, under the loi cadre reforms, African political parties won power in each of the territories, organizing a Government Council in each, under a sort of junior prime minister entitled Vice President du Conseil (the governor, appointed as before, presided over council meetings). Each jealously guarded power. As predicted in Paris, once African politicians – including some who came out of the trade union movement – had to balance the concerns of voting taxpayers in their territory against demands of civil servants' unions, the Government Councils were soon taking positions on labor questions rather more firm than those of the French administration. And as several labor leaders – Sékou Touré most prominent among them – saw the possibilities of political office before them, they started to use the labor movement more as a springboard for a wider constituency than as a means of furthering class interest. This was top-down trade unionism – there is no evidence that the rank and file of the major unions wanted to abandon the politics of escalating wage and benefit claims that had brought them a measure of success since 1945 – but the trend was noted with grudging admiration by French officials.[31]

But where did the advent of African elected governments, with real budgetary authority, patronage, and resources at their disposal, leave the quest for self-expression, dignity, and authority pursued by leading West African political actors? The autonomy of the government councils in 1957 was still limited by a French constitution that placed undivided sovereignty and ultimate power in the National Assembly, by the presence of High Commissioners appointed by Paris to represent the Republic, and by the uncertain legal basis of existing authority – which presumably could be taken away by the National Assembly that had provided it. So the debates over constitutional revision continued into 1957 and 1958. And at the core of debate in party conferences and journals like *L'Afrique Nouvelle* was still the concept of federalism – a concept whose meaning was becoming less and less clear. Let us begin with the most consistent and explicit advocates of federation and confederation, Senghor and Dia. Even before the new governments were in place, Dia warned of the dangers of "electionism" – of political leaders more concerned with offices than mobilizing the newly enfranchised voters. Thinking of the international context, he declared the Bandung

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conference – where the heads of newly independent states put on the table the possibility of a "Third World" bloc – to be "perhaps the most important event of the last ten years," out of which the poor would unite to address the rich, avoiding both "western hegemony" and Stalinism. For the French territories, there was one "last chance and the solution of the future: federalism." The ways in which the government had applied the loi cadre was a big step away from this goal. The only solution was revising the constitution, creating "a free association" of France, the Maghreb, and "autonomous African territories." In reaction to the Algerian war and "overseas nationalisms," France was itself developing a "neo-nationalism, worthy of Maurras and his epoch .... Only informed overseas opinion, resolute, unanimous, can save the situation by imposing a necessary revolution in French politics."[32]

That was easier to say than to do, especially after the March elections put Africans in positions of power within the territories. In some of them, the Rassemblement Démocratique Africain (RDA) – the party founded in 1946 – had decisive majorities. The RDA was itself an expression of the cross-territorial nature of post-war African politics, for it had branches in all the territories and sought to face the French government with a united African front. In Senegal, most notably, a territorially specific party won power. The Grand Conseil – the legislative body that was to govern AOF as a whole – had an RDA plurality, but not a majority. It plunged into a debate over an issue on the table since 1946 – the desire for a federal executive. The Grand Conseil, in turn, would become a federal parliament. But such a goal, pushed by Senghor, was not universally shared, and opposition to the federal executive came from among others the Côte d'Ivoire, Mauritania, and Dahomey.[33] There was division within the RDA on this subject – Houphouët-Boigny against the federal executive, Sékou Touré for it. But it was clear that the largest party in the AOF could not be the basis for unification. Attempts throughout 1957 and early 1958, including a series of conferences, failed to produce either fusion or a common front among African political parties.[34]

That left the non-RDA parties, with Senghor and Dia playing a prominent role, to try to put together their own version of an AOF-wide political grouping, baptized the Parti du Regroupement Africain (PRA). The PRA carried on the push for the federal executive and parliament. The AOF would then become a constituent part of a confederal France.

RDA politicians continued to disagree with each other. Houphouët-Boigny was pushing for a "direct liaison" of the territories with France, "with no intermediate échelon." At the RDA Congress in Bamako in

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September-October 1957, Sékou Touré made a major effort to get agreement on a compromise text agreeing upon "the democratization of the already-existing federal institutions." In his speech, the emphasized, "We are decided to build the Franco-African Community, while maintaining the unity of Africa which is dear to it." The constitution had to be revised: "The metropole and the overseas territories should become a grand FEDERAL STATE, including a FEDERAL PARLIAMENT, a FEDERAL GOVERNMENT and AUTONOMOUS GOVERNMENTS." The relationship between territories and metropole "will be on an egalitarian basis or they will not be."[35]

Advocates of federalism saw the RDA conference as a victory. Nazi Boni of the RDA branch in Upper Volta called the idea of small states being linked directly to France rather than with each other a "compartmentalized federalism." Suspicious of French political machinations, he saw federalism as the alternative to both French domination and territorial independence. "The people of Black Africa aren't thinking of secession," he concluded. But if the links to France dissolved, "It would be necessary to look for the causes in Paris."[36]

Sékou Touré continued to preach for a "Franco-African Community on an egalitarian basis," solidly anchored with federal institutions. In front of the Minister of Overseas France, visiting Guinea, he called for "the integral decolonization of Africa: its people, its inhabitants, its economy, its administrative organization, in order to build a solid Franco-African Community whose endurance will be guaranteed only if within it there no longer is the phenomena of injustice, discrimination or any form of depersonalization and indignity." Making clear the relevance of political institutions to economic possibilities, he pointed out "There is no Guinean market, no Senegalese market, no Ivoirien market, but an African market, common to all the African territories of French influence." He underscored that he was both rejecting colonialism and advocating a "free association with France." But he warned that should the French government hesitate, it would lose "its best chance of the century and place the overseas territories at risk of changing their political direction." Failure would push the people of Africa toward independence, which "for us" would be a "jump into the unknown."[37]

Houphouët-Boigny also continued to push for a "Franco-African Community." His version would have no African federal executive, but only "a certain economic coordination through Dakar." He considered – unlike Nazi Boni – this position consistent with the RDA's vote for democratized federal institutions. But, he insisted, the Côte d'Ivoire had made its choice. It would adhere directly to the Franco-African Community.

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The other territories, as far as he was concerned, were free to group themselves as they saw fit. "African unity is not in question. We have realized unity among our tribes of the interior in our territories. Just as Brittany has found its own unity within the French ensemble, we will realize African unity in the vast framework of the federation." An African federal executive would not favor the bigger project of federalism. "Federal executive? Yes, but in Paris, not in Dakar."[38]

The territory–Paris connection was exactly what Sékou Touré, like Senghor and Dia, thought "a dangerous formula." It would stand in the way of African unity and favor "egotisms and particularisms."[39]

If the RDA was divided over having an African federation, the PRA was becoming frazzled over the order in which to proceed toward the shared goal of African federation and confederation with France: independence first, then larger groupings? African federation first, then independence as a federation? Senghor, faced with radical positions, reminded his collaborators of the practical situation: the per capita GNP of European France was 20 times that of African France, and he distinguished between "real" and "nominal independence" that would only perpetual poverty. He insisted "We want the African community before the Franco-African community."[40]

Africa and the French community

We are now in the summer of 1958, when the crisis in Algeria brought Charles de Gaulle to power and when the rewriting of Title VIII of the constitution was subsumed under the writing of an entire new constitution for what would become the Fifth Republic. African leaders had both hopes and fears in this process – which was less transparent than the writing of the constitution of 1946 in which they had played a high-stakes game to positive effect. Africans were distressed at the early drafts of the constitution even though de Gaulle used – as he had in 1946 – the term "federal."

With the text still up in the air, they put in their claims. Sékou Touré wanted a "multinational federal community," with the federal (French) government's roles limited to defense, monetary police, foreign relations, and higher education. The constitution should recognize the right of independence, even if African territories did not choose to exercise it. He wanted to keep open the role of AOF. Dia went to Paris and returned pessimistic. He insisted that no African political party would accept a constitution not in "a federalist perspective," including "juridical equality, free determination and recognition of the national fact."

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Metropolitan France and the overseas departments and territories would be "one and the other autonomous states entering on equal footing in the same Federal Republic having the same President." There would be a federal parliament, an outgrowth of the current upper chamber (the Conseil de la République) and each state would have its own national assembly elected under universal suffrage. But Africans had to recognize that they would not longer be represented in the Chamber of Deputies (lower house), for if they did on an equitable basis they would "in their turn colonize the Metropole." Dia – with his bitter experience of the loi cadre – did not expect the new constitution to recognize an African federation, but he insisted that it leave the door open to autonomous states constituting such a federation within the larger French federation. And he warned "Outside of this process which alone allows the sincere realization of a Federation, on a basis of equality, lies – I say this with profound sadness – sooner or later, secession."[41]

The constitution that emerged did in fact bear African influence. It was on the suggestion of the President of Madagascar that de Gaulle used the term "French Community" to replace "French Union," which had in turn replaced "French Empire."[42] More substantively, the constitution redefined overseas territories as Member States and gave them what the second draft of the 1946 constitution had denied – the right to independence if they so chose. As Dia had envisioned, Africans were no longer represented in the National Assembly in Paris, but the heads of state of the Member States became part of an Executive Council that met with the President of France regularly to decide matters common to the Community. It did not repair one of the fundamental anomalies of the earlier constitution: the Community had a president (none other than the President of the French Republic) but there was no federal cabinet, and no federal bureaucracy, military, and treasury to implement the Executive Council's decisions.

Africans had a choice of whether to accept this constitutional proposal. But de Gaulle insisted that the choice was either to take the constitution as it was or secession. Senghor and others saw the constitution as a compromise they could live with, thinking that although it did not recognize any African federation, nothing prevented Member States from federating themselves and participating through the new unit in the French Community. The new constitution would thus bring about yet another phase of the struggle against balkanization. And it did give the right to Member States to opt for independence. African politicians were divided. The Parti Africain d'Indépendence contested Senghor's position within Senegal. Most famously, Sékou Touré and the Guinean

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branch of the RDA separated from Houphouet-Boigny, and the Ivorian branch (among others) confronted de Gaulle about the weaknesses of the constitutional proposal, and when de Gaulle huffily refused to change anything, opted to lead the charge for a "no" vote.

Elizabeth Schmidt has argued that the no campaign did not stem from willfulness on the part of Sékou Touré but from grass-roots pressure on him from radical militants of his party, in both rural and urban areas of Guinea. In any case, the position of the Guinean RDA was a nuanced one, and Sékou Touré and the leadership of his party, as we have seen, were not singularly focused on detaching Guinea from France, but on finding an alternative to actually existing colonialism, one which would give Africans means both to assert their dignity in international circles and to better their conditions of life.[43]

The vote on the Constitution of the Fifth Republic took Guinea out of the French empire-Community and left everyone else trying to figure out how to function in a new structure that was neither quite colonial nor quite anything else. As African politicians settled into running their governments, with their important budgetary authority, no issue was more contentious than the still ongoing possibility of forming an African – some called it "primary" – federation with the French community. The Côte d'Ivoire remained opposed, and the question was whether others could build a federation without this territory – the wealthiest of French West Africa. Long discussions among leaders from Senegal, Sudan, Upper Volta, and Dahomey, ensued in late 1958 and 1959.

The arguments that we have already seen were deployed in new form: a block of territories, dividing sovereign prerogatives between individual territory and federation, would be in a stronger position to work with European France in a confederation, to coordinate economic policy, and to express what Senghor insisted was "Negro-African" culture and society. For Senghor an African federation would cut across lines of tribe, caste, class, and religion: "From the states of Africa, today disunited, the Federation will make a single people with a single culture, renovated (rénovée) by French culture, a single people animated by the same faith and reaching toward the same goal, which is the realization of its collective personality."[44] Gabriel d'Arboussier, an RDA stalwart and a jurist, saw the proposed federation as "a state, which over and above the states which compose it, has its own resources."[45] The party configuration was changed once again with the creation of the Parti de la Fédération Africaine, whose goal was to work towards a federal republic and "the creation of a Negro-African nation."[46]

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To make a long story short, only a truncated federalism became a reality, the union of Senegal and its inland neighbor, French Sudan, creating the Mali Federation in 1959. Although Dahomey and Upper Volta came close to joining, in the end most West African leaders feared that larger or wealthier units might overwhelm them or that poorer units would claim a share of the resources of the more affluent; and they feared the power and influence of the Côte d'Ivoire. Mali made a serious attempt to make a go of it. Senghor and Dia from Senegal and Modibo Keita from Sudan, and others worked out arrangement for sharing "competences" between Mali and its member states. They wrote a constitution for the new entity.[47]

Although Senegal and Sudan were represented in the Executive Council as Member States of the French Community, Mali's leaders got the French government to accept Mali as its interlocutor in negotiating a future status. During 1959 and the first half of 1960, Malian leaders made clear that the federation was the focus of their aspirations for "national construction." As Mamadou Dia put it, "That is how Mali will build itself, and how we can best demonstrate our consciousness, or Malian national will; I do not say Senegalese or Sudanese, because there cannot be a nation at the level of our states – I say our Malian will, and we have the steady conviction that the cause which we serve is the Malian cause, and through it the cause of Africa."[48]

French leaders had seemingly preferred the Houphouët-Boigny approach to that of Senghor, Dia, or Sékou Touré – for just the reasons that the latter leaders favored an African federation. But as African leaders failed to reach agreement with each other, the French government saw the danger heightened that each territory would go its separate way. In a remarkable admission, the French High Commissioner in AOF saw Mamadou Dia as "perhaps the only statesman in French-speaking West Africa capable at the same time of moderating or slowing down Soudanese impatience, stimulated by Guinean pressures, and to look for and find a terrain of compromise if not agreement between Mali and the Conseil d'Entente [the pro-Ivorian territories]. And I would add that President Dia has the deep conviction that his intervention is the only means to save the Community."[49]

Nationalities in question

We see here an important aspect of the politics of the postwar years, easily overlooked if it is seen as a determined nationalism confronted by a rigid colonialism. French and African political leaders were working not

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on common but on overlapping ground. Both were being pushed into frameworks that were not what they initially had in mind.

So late in 1959, Mali, unable to capture aspirations to African unity, began to negotiate with France over independence. And France not only accepted the federation as its negotiating partner, but agreed to modify its definition of Community to suit Malian conditions. It would – finessing the constitution it had only just adapted – continue to regard Mali as part of the Community even when it became independent. It would guarantee Malians coming to European France the rights of the French citizen, if Mali would reciprocate.

The Executive Council became a new venue where African leaders could try to shape "the egalitarian character" of the Community – including the notion that nationality was not an attribute unique to European France.[50] In looking at the way the Council dealt with the delicate question of defining nationality, we see how the French government's acute desire to keep the Community alive led it to yield to an African conception on a matter important to African leaders. The 1958 Constitution stated explicitly that there was only one citizenship and that was "of the French Republic and of the Community." All citizens could exercise their rights in the territory of any Member State. But the Constitution said nothing about nationality.

At the February 1959 meeting of the Executive Council, a decision was taken that there was only one nationality in the Community. It appears that de Gaulle and his Prime Minister, Michel Debré, gave the other heads of state little chance to debate the issue in any depth.[51] But the African leaders were not happy with the decision, and at the July meeting they insisted on further consideration of the question of single or multiple nationalities within the French Community. The Council accepted "the need to respect, on the one hand, the existence of growing national sentiment in each state, and on the other hand, the unity of all members of the Community in relation to the exterior."[52]

French leaders saw nationality as implying a political entity whose personality was recognized by the community of already existing nations; overseas territories had no such status except through the French state. African leaders thought of nationality as coming from within, as a sense of collective purpose and action. Senghor distinguished "nation" from "patrie," the latter a given attribute of language and common customs, the former a construction coming out of a common project. "State," on the other hand, was a mechanism, a means by which nationality shaped itself and through which nationality was projected.[53]

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In such terms, the insistence that France had nationality while African Member States did not was demeaning. French leaders, including Prime Minister Debré, got the point and backed off from the position that there was only a single, French, nationality within the Community. A committee of "experts" was called in to come up with a new synthesis. They advanced the idea of "superposed" nationality. Each Member State would have its own nationality; it would write its own nationality legislation and decide whom to consider a national. The nationality conferred by an individual state would automatically confer nationality at the level of the Community. Inside the Community, there would be many nationalities, but the outside world would see only one, that of "The French Republic and of the Community." The committee's version of superposed nationality was accepted by the Conseil Exécutif in December 1959.[54] Here we see a remarkable admission on the part of the French government of how far it would go to preserve the French Community: accepting that African officials in Abidjan or Dakar could decide who had the nationality of the Community and could therefore exercise the rights of the citizen – in European France as much as anywhere else.

But the discussion of "superposed" nationality, so heated in November 1959, was gone by March 1960, as Mali was clearly about to acquire its own personality as an independent nation-state. Senghor still wanted to retain Community citizenship, but Modibo Keita of Sudan did not, apparently because he sought a less layered notion of sovereignty and a more unitary state – internally as well as in relation to France.[55] As negotiations went on, they focused less on the Community as a political entity and more on the bilateral relationship between France and Mali.

The agreements signed alongside the transfer of sovereignty to Mali defined by treaty what membership and citizenship in the Community had been supposed to do for all its citizens. They guaranteed that Malian and French citizens in the territory of the other state would enjoy the same rights and social services as any resident of the territory in which they were residing, including the right to enter and leave each other's territory.[56] French officials were more anxious to preserve the ability of European French people to reside in and do business in Mali than they were to limit the ability of Malians to come to France.[57]

The attraction of the Community was, for African leaders like Senghor (and earlier Sékou Touré), linked to the possibility of an African federation within it; it provided an umbrella under which French-speaking Africans could work with each other as fellow-citizens.[58] Using Community-wide citizenship as a basis for African claims to social and

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economic equivalence with European France had already been made more difficult. Once the possibilities of wider African union faded, then the reality of the situation was bilateral: the supra-sovereignty of Community offered less than the reciprocal rights (and the possibilities of aid) that could be negotiated as a sovereign state with France.[59]

Becoming independent in June 1960, Mali remained in the French Community, but with the rights of citizens of France in Mali and citizens of Mali in France now regulated by bilateral treaty and Mali taking on all the international attributes of a state, the significance of the Community was fading away.[60] With the Algerian war still going on, France would have to face each pattern of devolving power in all its particularity.

Now Mali had to define how one acquired Malian nationality. Its leaders worked on such a law during the summer of 1960. In keeping with a broadly African conception of nationality, they tried to leave room for citizens of other states of the Franco-African Community – plus Guinea – to obtain Malian citizenship.[61] There are some hints of less inclusive attitudes, mainly concern among ministers about Guineans or Dahomeans who had been civil servants for the government of French West Africa and continued to live in Senegal or Sudan without necessarily indicating loyalty to them.[62] But the federation came apart before the law was passed.

Nationality issues were not why the Mali Federation split up in August 1960. Senghor and Dia on the one hand and Keita on the other were both colleagues in government and political rivals, both fearing that – having built up political bases in their territories – they were at risk in a federation of having the rival undermine the political base. The populations of Senegal and Sudan were sufficiently overlapping and interacting and political affiliations sufficiently uncertain that fears of cross-state poaching were realistic. Senghor later portrayed Keita as a dogmatic socialist, willing to use totalitarian methods and threatening to outflank Senghor in Senegal from the left, while Keita may have thought Senghor too cozy with French leaders and a threat to use resources from that connection to co-opt Sudanese.[63]

After rejecting the notion of "Senegality," Senghor, Dia, and other leaders from Senegal ended up with just that.[64] Within half a year of the collapse of the Mali Federation, Senegal had passed a nationality act. The nationality law defined how one was attributed, acquired, and lost Senegalese nationality. Its central provision, as in much of the world, was filiation and residence: one became Senegalese by being born there or having a father or mother who was born there. The law

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initially opened Senegalese nationality to people from neighboring territories who were contributing to the Senegalese economy and who had revealed their attachment to Senegal by residing there, but that door soon closed, placing a line between Senegalese and other Africans. The nationality law was portrayed as an expression of Senegal's desire to place itself as a full and equal member of the community of nations.[65]

The politics of the bounded nation-state were to become important in independent Africa, sometimes carried to xenophobic levels. An extreme manifestation is in the Côte d'Ivoire, where the government has deployed the concept of "ivoirité" to distinguish what it regards as true nationals from people from elsewhere, mainly from countries to the north, despite the fact that such people had long contributed to the Ivorian economy and become closely integrated into Ivorian institutions and communities.

European France also became more national. When African deputies left the Assemblée Nationale in 1958 and as their Algerian colleagues departed in 1962 with the coming of independence, they left the legislature the kind of franco-French institution of which people complain today. Africans from former colonies who had after 1946 come to European France as citizens were gradually redefined as "immigrants" and from the 1970s barriers to their entering France grew higher.[66]

Conclusion

Tracing the views of French West African political leaders in the 15 years after World War II allows us to see possibility and uncertainty. Rather than a "modular" nationalism – as in the formulation of Benedict Anderson – posing as the alternative to empire, we see people working towards ways of reconciling African particularity with efforts to attain economic and social security, of repudiating a colonial past without rejecting everything that was French.[67] This shows that the idea of "nation" was both powerful and deeply uncertain, as African political actors and political parties debated, without fully resolving, the question of whether the nation was French, African, or else Senegalese, Dahomean, or Ivorian. That the projects of building a West African Federation and a French Community failed do not so much reflect the inherent attractiveness of nationalism as a much more contingent process, in which political actors jockeyed for advantage, made decisions in light of circumstances and conflicts, and then reconstructed retrospectively their own tenuous positions as both just and inevitable.

The Dean of the law faculty at the University of Dakar, Roger Decottignies, in a perceptive article published in 1959 when these

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issues were still quite open, asked why the concept of citizenship, with its colonial roots, was so appealing to African activists. He thought that citizenship was being used in a new way – "it is to push back the colonial fact" (le fait colonial). What African leaders sought was an "intercitizenship" that recognized both local citizenships and a wider community citizenship. Africans were creating new citizenships and new nationalities – but exactly what they were remained uncertain. But France was being transformed too, for it was becoming part of a "plurinational entity" – just as Dia had demanded a few years earlier.[68]

In the end, African federation and French Community failed, and they failed together. Whether they *had* to fail is a question that has no evident answer. The attempt to make them work reflects the acceptance, on the part of French officials, that however much they wanted to conserve power, they could not do so as they had done in the past, and once that point was accepted, they were caught up in a political dynamic pushing them into positions they did not always want to take: from abandoning attempts to dilute citizenship rights in 1946 to accepting the multinational nature of the French Community in 1959. African leaders, however painful and bitter their experience of colonization, were accepting not only that they had practical needs of France – the "vertical" ties of which Senghor and Dia spoke – but that the connection with France was an historical one, and that Africans' connection with each other was a product of both "Negro-African culture" and French colonization.

Senghor and Dia's suspicion of territorial nationalism proved all too valid, and they themselves could not escape its consequences or its temptations. They had feared that in states that had little but sovereignty to offer – nominal independence as Senghor called it – officials would have little but their offices. They would be tempted to keep them at all costs and to seek clients within their territories and patrons abroad. Anxiety to protect a fragile political base was the major reason the Mali Federation failed, but Senegal, as a nation-state, was at least as vulnerable to this kind of politics: when Senghor fell out with Dia in 1962, expelled him from the government, and had him imprisoned, it was clear that he was playing the kind of politics he himself had feared. One can say the same about Sékou Touré, who had once warned of the dangers of "egotisms and particularisms" in territorial politics. Much as "African unity" had been set by political activists against subservience to France, the first casualty of territorial independence in Africa was the connection among Africans, as each territorial leadership sought to develop its own connections to patrons overseas.[69]

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By focusing on the dynamics of politics, we avoid the temptation of projecting backward our present condition into an inevitable pathway. Just what "France" was had not been decided in 1959, just as the "national" character of Senegal or Côte d'Ivoire was not a precondition of the process described in these pages, but its consequence. The alternatives to the territorial nation-state put forth by French West African leaders between 1945 and 1960 did not come into being, but it is worth remembering the political imagination and energy that went into the effort to explore and develop them. Africa – and France – could use such imagination and energy today.

Notes

1. *La Condition Humaine*, 25 February 1953.
2. *La Condition Humaine*, 29 August 1955.
3. *La Condition Humaine*, 31 May 1956: "VIIIème Congrès Annuel du BDS," "Rapport Moral" by Mamadou Dia.
4. Basil Davidson (1992).
5. On the historical context, see Jane Burbank and Frederick Cooper (2010).
6. This section summarizes my own work (2009: 94–123).
7. Assemblée Nationale Constituante (ANC), Commission de la Constitution, Comptes Rendus Analytiques, session of 25 January 1946: 261.
8. Robert Lemaignen, Léopold Sédar Senghor and Prince Sisonath Youtévong (1945).
9. ANC, Rapport Supplementaire of Commission de la Constitution sur l'Union Française, Léopold Senghor, reporter, 5 April 1946, in ANC, Documents, Report #885.
10. Coste-Floret, ANC, Débats, 9 April 1946: 1640, and Senghor, ANC, Commission de la Constitution, Comptes Rendus, 12 February 1946: 443.
11. ANC, Débats, 27 August 1946: 3334.
12. Documents de l'Assemblée Nationale Constituante, Rapport de la Commission de la Constitution, Annexe II-350, séance du 2 août 1946: 295–8.
13. Libération, 21 September 1946, Lamine Guèye (1966: 161–2) and Bruce Marshall (1973: 286–9).
14. AOF, Directeur Général des Affaires Politiques, Administratives et Sociales, note, July 1946, 17G 152, Archives du Sénégal (AS).
15. François Borella (1958).
16. Frederick Cooper (1996).
17. *La Condition Humaine*, 11 February 1948.
18. *La Condition Humaine*, 11 July 1948.
19. Senghor, "Rapport sur le méthode du Parti," to Congress of BDS, 15–17 April 1949 and *La Condition Humaine*, 26 April 1949.
20. *La Condition Humaine*, 29 November 1951.
21. Frederick Cooper (1996).
22. See, for the example of veterans' benefits, Gregory Mann (2006).
23. Todd Shepard (2006).

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24. Gérard Peureux (1960).
25. "Note sur les modifications à apporter à la constitution de la République Française," June 1955, commission headed by Senghor, 4AG 528, Archives Nationales Françaises (ANF).
26. Mamadou Dia, "Rapport Moral" to VIIIème Congrès Annuel du BDS, reprinted in *La Condition Humaine*, 31 May 1956.
27. Senghor in 1953 and 1954 submitted proposals for giving more power to territorial assemblies and for creating cabinets (Conseils de gouvernment). "Note au sujet de la modification des attributions des Grands Conseils et des Assemblées des territoires groupes, 13 July 1954," notes on "assemblées locales et du statut financier des groupes de l'AOF," 12 May 1954, "Mémoire sur la réforme des structures de l'AOF," 11 July 1955, AP 491, Centre Archives d'Outre-Mer (CAOM).
28. Frederick Cooper (1996), especially Chapters 10 and 11.
29. Affaires Politique, section d'études, note pour M. le Ministre, 27 November 1953, AP 217/4, CAOM; Mission d'Etude d'une reorganisation administrative eventuelle de l'AOF, 1953–1954, and comments of High Commissioner on this report, 19 July 1954, AP 491, CAOM.
30. "Discours d'ouverture du President Mamadou Dia au premier seminaire national d'études pour les responsables politiques, parlementaires, gouvernementaux," 26 October 1959, "sur la construction nationale," VP 93, AS.
31. This theme is developed in Frederick Cooper (1996), Chapter 11.
32. Mamadou Dia, *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 15 January 1957.
33. The most thorough narrative to date of this period is Joseph Roger de Benoist (1982). See also Ruth Schachter Morgenthau (1964) and Tony Chafer (2002).
34. Joseph Roger De Benoist (1982: 354–8).
35. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 1 October 1957.
36. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 19 November 1957.
37. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 7 March 1958.
38. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 18 April 1958.
39. *L'Afrique Novuelle*, 6 June 1958.
40. These were debated at the congress on 25–27 July 1958. See *L'Afrique Novuelle*, 1 August 1958 and Joseph Roger de Benoist (1982: 404–8).
41. *L'Afrique Novuelle*, 18 July 1958.
42. Prime Minister's office, "La France, L'afrique noire et Madagascar," February 1961, in papers of Michel Debré, Fondation Nationale de Science Politique, 2DE 34.
43. Elizabeth Schmidt (2007), especially Chapter 6.
44. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 23 January 1959.
45. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 23 January 1959.
46. *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 3 July 1959.
47. The best study to date is William Foltz (1965). But the opening of the federation archives in Dakar (Fond FM of the Archives du Sénégal) now allows a deeper examination.
48. Opening and closing speeches of Mamadou Dia to first national study seminar for political, parliamentary, and government leaders, "on national construction," 26 October, 1959, VP 93, AS.

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49. High Commissioner to Secretary General of the Community, 20 August 1959, AP 221/3, CAOM.
50. Dossier in preparation for meeting of Conseil Executif, 2–3 February 1959, VP 133, AS.
51. There is a hand-written account of the meeting taken by Jacques Foccart in his papers, FPR 105, ANF. For Senegalese concern about defining their own nationality, see Paper of President du Conseil de Gouvernment du Sénégal for HC de la Communauté auprès de l'Etat du Senegal, 5 January 1959, VP 133, AS.
52. Communiqué of Conseil Exécutif, *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 18 September 1959.
53. Senghor, speech as President of the Assemblée Fédérale du Mali, to that assembly, Dakar, 6 April 1959, copy in FPR 238, ANF.
54. Conseil Exécutif de la Communauté, "Comité des experts chargés de l'étude des problèmes de la nationalité et de la citoyenneté," transcript of meetings of 16 and 18 November 1959, FPU 215, ANF. The committee included representatives from the overseas territories. For the approval of this report, see Conseil Exécutif de la Communauté, 11–12 December 1959, "Relève des décisions qui resultent de l'approbation du rapport sur la nationalité et la citoyenneté par le Conseil Exécutif," ibid.
55. Note d'information concernant les institutions de la Communauté, n. d. [December 1959], FPU 198; Haut Commissaire, Bamako, telegram to Secretariat General of Community, 14 April 1960, 5 May 1960, FPU 1677; "note à l'attention de M. Le Président de la Communauté," 21 March 1960, FPR 106, all in ANF.
56. See the papers in the file "citoyenneté: négociations Mali 10–15 Mars 1960," in FPU 201, ANF.
57. Officials in charge of Community affairs noted that Africans, as French citizens, already had the right to enter France and they thought that since France was growing economically and Mali was underpopulated, guaranteeing Malians the right to enter France freely and reside and work there would cause no difficulties. "Note relative à la nationalité," 9 January 1960, FPU 218. On French desires to preserve Community citizenship and protect the rights of French nationals in Mali, see "note, projet de convention franco-malienne d'établissement," 24 March 1960, and Prime Minister Michel Debré to President de Gaulle, 19 March 1960, FPR 106, ANF.
58. On thinking within the Parti de la Fédération Africaine on the relationship of nationality, citizenship, independence, and the goal of "regrouping of African States," see Boissier Palun, report on "Condition des personnes dans la perspective de l'indépendance du Mali," discussed at meeting of PFA, 7 December 1959, and enclosed in Haut Commissaire, Dakar, to President of Community, 8 December 1959, FPU 198, ANF.
59. A leading Malian negotiator, Madeira Keita, later put it this way: "Mali intended to be tied only by bilateral accords that it freely negotiated with France, because the Malian delegation negotiated in the name of an absolutely independent state." Address to meeting of Union Soudanaise, 28–31 May 1960, FPU 1677, ANF.
60. Secretariat General for the Community, "Note Relative aux transfers des competences en matière de politique étrangère," n. d. [March 1960], FPU 201, ANF.

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61. Ministre de la Justice (Boubakar Guèye) to President of Government of Mali, 10 June 1960, submitting report on the activities of the ministry, FM 159, AS. While I have seen references to the drafting of a nationalities law and to the fact that it was not implemented, I have yet to find the text of the draft.
62. Minute of Council of Ministers of Mali Federation, 22 October, 19 November 1959, FM 37, AS.
63. William Foltz (1965).
64. Senghor himself, after the collapse, pointed this out, noting that for 15 years he had campaigned against "a certain malady, innoculated by colonialism, and which I called senegality. It was a complex of superiority." But now he claimed "Senegalese independence is an African necessity." *L'Afrique Nouvelle*, 14 September 1960.
65. Law No. 61-10 of 7 March 1961, "déterminant la nationalité sénégalaise," reprinted in Roger Decottignies and Marc de Biéville (1963) *Les nationalités africaines* (Paris: Pedone): 300–06. See reports on the rationale and contents of this law in ibid. 226 and VP 121, AS.
66. This side of the story is brought out in Frederick Cooper (forthcoming).
67. Benedict Anderson (1983).
68. Roger Decottignies (1959: 41–71).
69. I have developed these themes in Fredrick Cooper (2002) and Fredrick Cooper (2008).

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